

Chapter

Global Drivers of Wildlife Biodiversity Loss: Pollution, Climate Change, Disease and Biological Invasions through a One Health Lens

*Diana Echeverry Berrío, Daniela Cartes Venegas,
Daniela Ivonne Doussang, Lien Rodríguez López,
Juana Paola Correa, AnaLía Henríquez Herrera,
Gabriela Del Aguila-Herrera and
Maria Carolina Silva De la Fuente*

Abstract

There are direct and indirect drivers of biodiversity loss that contribute to species extinction and, consequently, to the loss of ecosystem services. Most of these drivers are of anthropogenic origin and, particularly in recent times, new consequences of industrial or economic activities have been identified that irreparably disrupt ecosystems. There is a race against time to establish conservation and management policies for biodiversity that can halt or mitigate these impacts. Additionally, species face threats related to habitat fragmentation and transformation. As habitat contamination increases, wildlife displacement and migration occur, while climate change promotes the expansion of vectors and pathogens. As a result, emerging zoonotic diseases have arisen, representing a global concern. Furthermore, invasive exotic species compete increasingly for limited resources with native and endemic species, drastically altering population dynamics. Conservation programs, in turn, focus considerable efforts on protecting and restoring affected ecosystems through interdisciplinary work and transboundary initiatives. This chapter focuses on addressing the main current threats facing biodiversity. Special attention is given to emerging diseases and zoonoses, surveillance mechanisms, wildlife rehabilitation strategies, and the integration of ecological, epidemiological, and conservation perspectives. Particular emphasis is placed on the need for interdisciplinary approaches within the One Health framework to improve biodiversity management and protection.

Keywords: anthropogenic impacts, biodiversity loss, emerging infectious diseases, environmental pollution, habitat fragmentation, wildlife health, zoonotic pathogens

1. Introduction

The biodiversity of the planet is currently facing accelerated destruction and loss due to the impacts of human activities [1]. The main cause of biodiversity loss is the fragmentation of ecosystems, which leads to a decline in species and their populations [2]. Biodiversity provides humans with the services or benefits necessary for their survival; these are known as ecosystem services. These ecosystem services can be tangible or intangible; many people are unaware of these benefits and do not recognize the link between the conservation of wildlife species, biodiversity, and the natural resources to which they have access [3–5]. To sustain these benefits and life on the planet, it is necessary to preserve ecosystems that are critical for regulatory processes, such as climate regulation and carbon dioxide sequestration, among others. Many of these ecosystems are currently threatened and/or considered to be biodiversity hotspots.

At this point, the distinction between conservation and preservation lies in the emphasis placed on limiting human intervention in the latter, with the aim of maintaining these ecosystems in a pristine state [6]. Given their high fragility and vulnerability, any potential anthropogenic disturbance may lead to biodiversity loss and the degradation of ecosystem services that support life on Earth [7].

The rehabilitation and management of keystone species or ecosystem engineers represent important strategies for conserving and preserving biodiversity [8–10]. These activities have a significant and undeniable impact, as any effort to restore biodiversity, whether in plants, animals, microorganisms, or ecosystems, also has implications for human well-being [11]. Therefore, biodiversity conservation is now increasingly viewed through a One Health perspective. The aim of this chapter is to address the main threats facing biodiversity, primarily from a One Health approach, and to examine how these threats influence the transmission of emerging zoonotic diseases. These diseases often arise as a result of alterations in biodiversity, driven by climate change, habitat loss and fragmentation, and increased human–wildlife interactions. The interconnections among infectious diseases, biodiversity, and climate change are well recognized by the scientific community [12, 13]. Zoonotic diseases are those that can be transmitted from nonhuman animals to humans or from humans to nonhuman animals [14].

Information obtained from in situ and ex situ population monitoring is valuable for strengthening disease transmission prevention measures, as well as for promoting public policies and educational campaigns that address the interconnected concepts of animal health, ecosystem health, and human health. This chapter also discusses policies and agreements that serve as global tools for biodiversity protection, along with future perspectives to support these efforts.

2. Interconnectedness of biodiversity: Genes, species, and ecosystems in conservation

To develop a comprehensive understanding of the importance of wildlife conservation, it is essential to begin by recognizing the three levels of biodiversity: genes, species, and ecosystems [15, 16]. Conservation actions may target any of these

levels or have direct or indirect effects across all of them. To better understand this framework, it is important to note that the convention on biological diversity (CBD) was the first to formally include genetic richness and variability as key components of conservation, as well as to recognize the importance of regulating their use [17]. Currently, the loss of genetic variability in wild populations increases their vulnerability to evolutionary pressures, compromising their capacity for adaptation and response [18]. This loss of genetic diversity is particularly evident in small, isolated, and fragmented populations, where gene flow is reduced or becomes impossible [19, 20]. Consequently, species with vulnerable characteristics, such as endemic species, have disappeared or are now classified under threat categories of extinction risk [20, 21]. If species richness declines within an ecosystem, critical ecological interactions that sustain essential functions are lost. For example, the loss of pollinators, seed dispersers, biological control agents, ecosystem engineers, and soil biological activity can significantly affect ecosystem functioning and the provision of ecosystem services [22, 23]. Likewise, each ecosystem is unique and irreplaceable, shaped by its geographic location, species richness, and climatic and topographic characteristics [24]. Ecosystems, like biodiversity, are not static; however, the processes they support are fundamental. Their loss could lead to cascading effects, potentially impacting distant ecosystems due to the disappearance of the services and benefits they once provided [25].

3. Direct drivers of wildlife decline in a one health context

Among the causes of biodiversity loss, habitat fragmentation is one of those that have the greatest impact on the populations of different species. This leads to restricted movement, an inability to exchange genes, and changes in population dynamics such as reduced reproductive success, increased risk of predation in open areas, and loss of species richness, amongst others [2, 26]. Species responses to fragmentation are not uniform and depend on the ecological and taxonomic context. Some species may decline or disappear in small, isolated fragments, whilst others may persist, be more tolerant, or be associated with edge habitats. Body size, mobility and philopatry also significantly influence species' adaptation to fragmentation [27].

Urbanization is one of the most significant drivers of habitat fragmentation, which not only poses a threat to conservation but also increases contact between humans, wild animals and domestic animals. Urbanization also brings with it various consequences that lead to increased physiological stress in species due to different types of pollution arising from cities, such as chemical pollution (pesticides, heavy metals), noise pollution, light pollution, and pollution from waste such as plastics and microplastics [28–30]. It has been established that species belonging to different taxonomic groups are vulnerable to plastic pollution, with birds being the group for which the most evidence of these impacts is available [31, 32]. Both marine and terrestrial animals have been shown to ingest microplastics as part of their regular diet due to high levels of environmental pollution [33–37]. However, the long-term effects of this phenomenon on animal populations remain largely unknown. At a smaller scale, sublethal impacts that primarily affect birds have also been documented. Among these effects, plastic-induced fibrosis, known as “plasticosis,” has been described in seabird stomach tissues [38]. The presence of plastics and microplastics in ecosystems is of increasing concern because they can serve as

fomites for bacteria, viruses, and protozoa, while also promoting the transport and persistence of antibiotic-resistant bacteria [39, 40].

Therefore, pollution resulting from urbanization is an emerging threat that warrants attention. Solid waste pollution is usually more visible, and its effects are more immediate and quantifiable [41]. Among these pollutants, plastics play a key role, as they can exacerbate threats through multiple pathways. One such pathway relates to their effect on species movement through habitat occupation and the attraction of certain species to the material, creating ecological traps [42]. Other impacts include entanglement, ingestion, obstruction, and injuries caused by macroplastics and mesoplastics, as well as the circulation of microplastics within organisms along food chains, which facilitates bioaccumulation [31, 32]. Furthermore, plastics can release substances that act as xenoestrogens, disrupting endocrine responses [31].

Returning to the issue of chemical pollution, the use of pesticides and agrochemicals has had a cumulative impact on ecosystems and living organisms over the years. To give one example, in South America, a literature review of reports on incidents associated with contamination by agrochemicals and pesticides revealed that a significant proportion of vertebrate animals (particularly the class Actinopterygii) are affected by these substances [43].

In this context of threats to biodiversity, algal blooms have emerged as a significant public health and environmental issue worldwide. Although they are not a new phenomenon, the fact is that, as a result of human activities and climate change, they are becoming increasingly frequent, leading to mass mortality among aquatic animals [44, 45]. In wild animals, this can manifest as an acute or chronic condition due to exposure to biotoxins produced by algae; furthermore, there is a trophic transfer, as some organisms are capable of accumulating these biotoxins [46–48]. These compounds can cause immunological alterations, neurological disorders, liver failure and even death in vertebrates [49–51]. Marine mammals are also among the species most susceptible to algal blooms; some scientists suggest that certain physiological adaptations may increase susceptibility to these toxins, as has been observed in California sea lions exposed to domoic acid, associated with *Pseudo-nitzschia* blooms [52, 53]. Algal blooms not only affect ecosystems and wildlife but, due to the bioaccumulation of their toxins, can also cause toxic and even fatal effects in human populations. These algal toxins, produced in both marine and freshwater environments, can induce hepatotoxicity in humans [54–56].

Another major threat to biodiversity is invasive alien species, which are highly adaptable, reproduce readily and are generalists [57, 58]. Some ecosystems may provide conditions that facilitate the establishment and spread of these species. Ecosystems that are more vulnerable, particularly those lacking competing species or offering exploitable resources, can further support the establishment and expansion of invasive species [59]. For these processes to occur, an initial introduction (whether intentional or accidental) must take place, involving a sufficient number of propagules to establish a viable population over time [58]. A well-known example is the introduction of the beaver in Argentine Patagonia, originally brought in to support the fur industry with approximately 50 individuals. Today, this species has spread widely, causing significant ecological impacts in southern Chile and Argentina [60, 61].

Furthermore, cities act as hotspots for the introduction and establishment of domestic and feral species, which can become invasive, competing with native

wildlife, preying on it, or acting as reservoirs for disease. This can increase susceptibility to infection and facilitate the spread of pathogens [62]. For example, haemoplasma infections have been documented in wildcats associated with contact with domestic cats, highlighting the risk of disease transmission to vulnerable native species [63–65]. The intrusion of domestic species into wild habitats further complicates in situ conservation programs for threatened species such as the huemul (*Hippocamelus bisulcus*) in southern Chile and Argentina, whose populations are small and susceptible to various pathogens, including herpesviruses, parapoxviruses, *Corynebacterium pseudotuberculosis*, and *Echinococcus granulosus* [66, 67]. Similarly, in South American cervids, the presence of *Leptospira interrogans* (Hardjo), pestiviruses, and *Toxoplasma gondii* has been reported, associated with contact with domestic or captive animals [68].

Another pathway of introduction is the keeping of exotic species as pets, a trend that has increased in recent years due to a lack of awareness of their ecological impacts and the influence of social media. A clear example is the red-eared slider, which has become an invasive species with a global distribution across diverse ecosystems [69, 70]. This not only threatens native fauna through competition and predation but also poses a public health concern, as these species can act as reservoirs of zoonotic pathogens such as *Salmonella* spp. [71].

4. Conservation medicine and the one health approach: Emerging diseases and zoonoses

Although infectious diseases have not always been considered a direct driver of biodiversity loss, they can increase the vulnerability of wildlife species already threatened by other factors and may even contribute to severe population declines or extinction [72]. This phenomenon has been described as “biodiversity diseases” [72–77]. These diseases may involve zoonotic agents, as well as pathogens that primarily affect nonhuman animal species.

The consequences of these diseases may include mass mortality events, severe population declines, and even extinction [75]. Notable examples include infection by *Batrachochytrium dendrobatidis* in amphibians, associated with the decline of at least 501 species worldwide [78]; white-nose syndrome caused by *Pseudogymnoascus destructans* in bats, with declines exceeding 95% in some populations [79]; and highly pathogenic avian influenza, whose outbreak in the Americas since 2021 has resulted in the death of hundreds of thousands of wild birds and mammals [80, 81].

Additionally, globalization, wildlife trade, and species translocation can facilitate the introduction and spread of pathogens into new areas or populations [82–84], while physiological stress associated with environmental changes may increase wildlife susceptibility to infection [85]. Climate change, in particular, is altering the geographic distribution of vectors and hosts, modifying the epidemiological dynamics of multiple diseases and expanding pathogens into new areas and into susceptible species [86].

To better understand the dynamics of these infections, the concepts of spillover and spillback are particularly useful [73, 87]. Spillover refers to the transmission of a pathogen from one species, typically a reservoir, although it may also involve an amplifier or bridge host, to a new susceptible species. Spillback refers to the transmission

of that pathogen from the new host back to the original host (**Figure 1**). Through spillover events from domestic animals to wildlife, already vulnerable populations may become further threatened [88–90]. Other emerging diseases may enter wildlife populations through direct or indirect introduction associated with human activities, a phenomenon known as “pathogen pollution” [91–93], while others may involve native pathogens whose dynamics are altered by environmental change [90]. This diversity of scenarios highlights that infectious diseases can act as both direct and indirect threats to conservation, often in synergy with other drivers of biodiversity loss.

Given that approximately 70–75% of emerging infectious diseases in humans are of zoonotic origin [94, 95], the surveillance of these processes must be integrated and sustained over time (**Figure 1**). This requires considering not only pathogens and their wildlife hosts but also domestic animals, human populations, and the environments in which these interactions occur [96–98]. This includes, for example, the potential transmission of zoonotic pathogens through the hunting of wildlife for human consumption, such as in the case of the puma (*Puma concolor*), which can carry larvae of *Trichinella spiralis* in the Americas [99–101]. Similarly, many communities in forested and tropical regions have historically depended on wildlife as a source of food [102, 103]. In regions such as the Congo Basin, the convergence of hunting, deforestation, urbanization, and rapid population growth has facilitated historical spillover events, including the emergence or re-emergence of HIV-1, Ebola, and monkeypox [104–107].

In this context, Conservation Medicine has emerged as a strategic interdisciplinary field that integrates ecology, epidemiology, veterinary medicine, and environmental sciences to understand and mitigate the effects of interactions among human, animal, and ecosystem health [108–110]. Under this approach, disease prevention and control extend beyond clinical responses to include surveillance of wildlife reservoirs, environmental monitoring, and an understanding of the ecological factors that drive pathogen emergence [111].

Epidemiological surveillance in wildlife represents one of the operational pillars of Conservation Medicine. Unlike traditional systems focused on humans or domestic animals, it requires methodologies adapted to complex ecological contexts, where biodiversity, community structure, and environmental conditions influence pathogen circulation [112]. Monitoring pathogens in natural reservoirs, including bacteria, viruses, and parasites such as those of the genus *Orientia* – the etiological agent of scrub typhus – allows for the anticipation of health risks and a better understanding of transmission patterns at human–animal interfaces [113, 114]. Ultimately, strengthening public policies, fostering international collaboration, and implementing integrated surveillance programs are essential to addressing these challenges. Conservation Medicine, framed within the One Health approach, provides a robust platform for evidence-based decision-making, promoting ecosystem sustainability and biodiversity protection.

5. The importance of postmortem surveillance in wildlife within a one health framework

Wildlife conservation is a multidisciplinary effort that integrates different fields of study with the aim of first understanding the threats faced by animal populations and subsequently planning protection strategies that contribute to the preservation

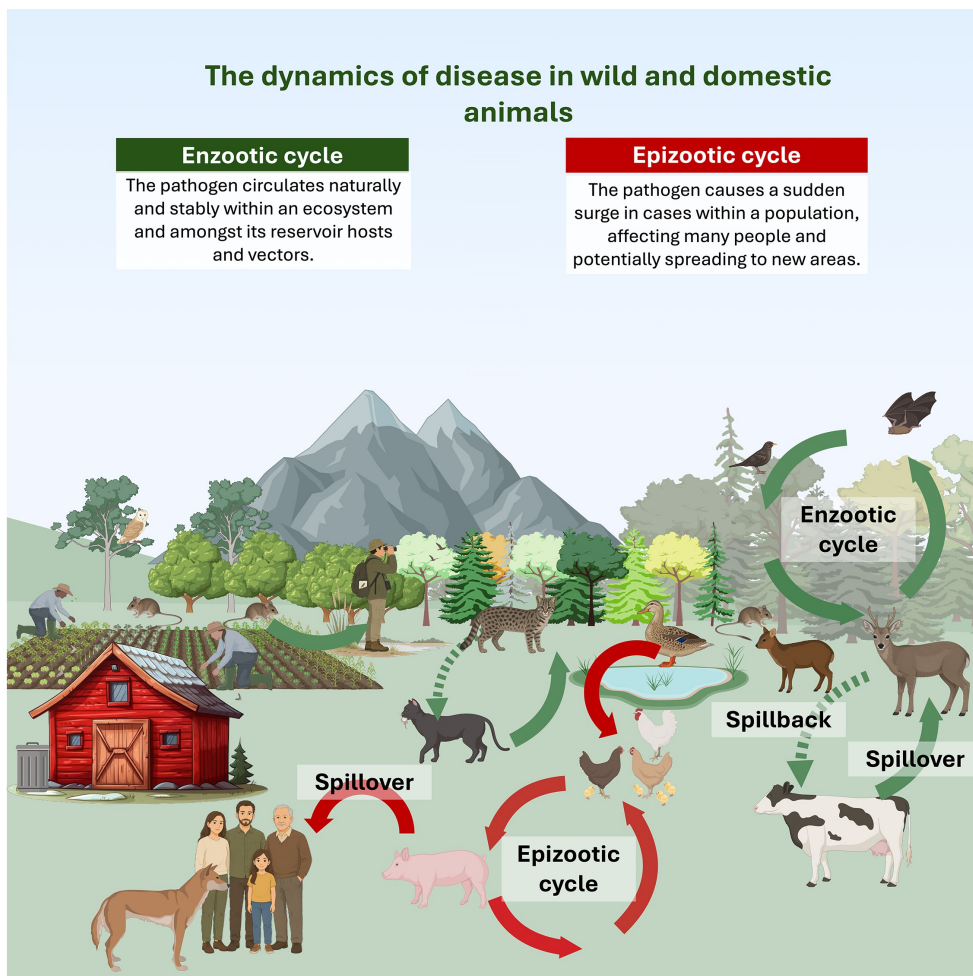


Figure 1. Transmission dynamics of zoonotic diseases. The image illustrates how interactions between domestic animals, wildlife and humans can facilitate the transmission of pathogens, highlighting spillover events and epizootic cycles characterized by a rapid increase in cases. Similarly, the phenomenon of spillback (transmission from domestic animals back to wildlife) shows how pathogens can circulate within a given environment and return to their original host. Overall, the figure underscores the importance of ecological interactions and human activities in shaping disease emergence and transmission dynamics within a One Health framework.

of ecosystems as a fundamental component of their interrelationship with human health and well-being [115].

Among the disciplines involved in conservation, veterinary pathology plays a key role, particularly through the use of necropsy as a diagnostic tool. A necropsy is defined as a systematic and organized examination performed on a carcass to identify lesions and alterations, which may or may not be related to the cause of death [116, 117]. When applied in the context of wildlife, this technique has additional value, as it provides access to information from species that are otherwise difficult to study in their natural environment. This tool not only allows the determination of the cause of death in an individual but also functions as a biological, ecological, epidemiological, and environmental surveillance system, enabling the

study of phenomena that simultaneously affect animals, ecosystems, and human populations [118, 119].

Health surveillance of animal populations plays a critical role, as many diseases affecting both animals and humans originate in wildlife. Therefore, early detection of outbreaks and identification of causative agents can support the development of prevention and/or containment strategies [116–118, 120]. In this context, postmortem examination in wildlife often represents the only available evidence of pathological processes occurring within a population or ecosystem, allowing for the early detection of emerging diseases, identification of infectious agent reservoirs, and monitoring of spillover and spillback events [121].

Mortality events involving one or more individuals associated with anthropogenic activities, whether accidental (e.g., collisions with power lines [122], wind farms [123], and vehicles [124]), intentional (e.g., illegal hunting [125]), or resulting from habitat urbanization and human–wildlife conflict can be identified through necropsy. This information can contribute to the formulation of mitigation measures or be used in legal processes related to environmental crimes [126].

6. Tools for wildlife conservation and fauna rehabilitation and their impact on ecosystems

6.1 Wildlife rehabilitation

Wildlife rehabilitation is defined by the National Wildlife Rehabilitators Association (NWRA) as the treatment and temporary care of injured, diseased, or displaced native animals, and the subsequent release of healthy animals to appropriate natural habitats, encompassing the recovery of animals at the sanitary, physical, psychological, and behavioral levels [127]. Etymologically, rehabilitation can be interpreted as restoring something to its former condition and in this context refers to the process of reinstating these capacities in an individual that has suffered some form of pathology or has been removed from its habitat. It is one of the most complex tasks within wildlife conservation [128], requiring extensive knowledge in biology, veterinary medicine, and wildlife management [129], while also contending with ongoing differences in criteria regarding treatments and prognoses for survival and reintegration [130].

The reasons that may lead to the initiation of a rehabilitation process are varied and include trauma from diverse causes, disease, extreme weather events, hunting, poisoning, burns, and orphaning, among others [131, 132]. The primary objective of rehabilitation is to provide animals with the greatest possible chance of survival while contributing to the conservation of their populations and biodiversity, thereby continuing to fulfill their ecological role in ecosystems. Successful reintroduction to the natural habitat is the most widely accepted criterion for success [133]. However, it is estimated that only approximately 40% of individuals admitted to rehabilitation centers are ultimately reintroduced into their natural habitat [130].

6.2 Stages of the rehabilitation process

The rehabilitation process comprises several stages such as patient admission, rehabilitation, prerelease, release, and postrelease monitoring (**Figure 2**). During the

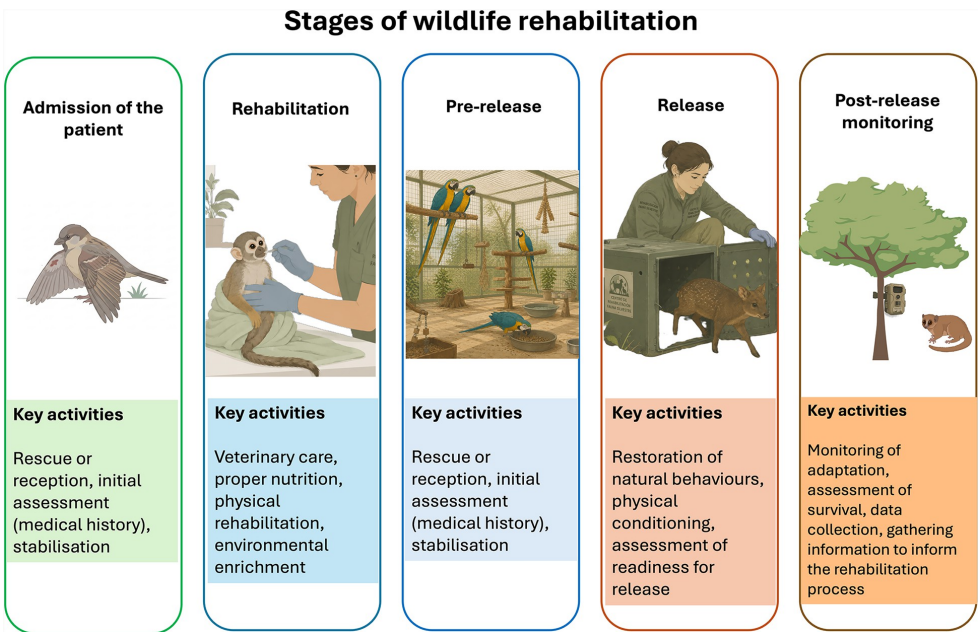


Figure 2.
Stages of wildlife rehabilitation. Key activities at each stage of the wildlife rehabilitation process, leading to subsequent release or reintroduction.

admission of wildlife patients, key information can be obtained regarding the individual's interactions with its ecosystem, humans, and domestic animals. Wildlife rehabilitation centers have, in some cases, reported an increasing number of admissions resulting from dog attacks. This pattern is likely associated with urbanization, habitat fragmentation, and other anthropogenic processes that increase contact between wildlife and domestic animals [134–136].

Prior to release, decisions must be made regarding the fate of the individual, for which the rehabilitation process must have included behavioral and health assessments. It is equally important to verify that the release or relocation site is free from the threats that originally necessitated the animal's admission [137]. In cases where full rehabilitation is not achieved, individuals may be directed toward other conservation-oriented purposes, such as exhibition centers, sanctuaries, or zoological institutions, primarily for educational ends. Rehabilitation, release, and postrelease monitoring are critical stages in wildlife conservation, as every decision can influence not only the survival of the individual but also the health of its population, ecological community, and ecosystem. Individuals should only be released once they are free of pathogens that could pose a risk to wildlife, domestic animals, or humans. Moreover, postrelease monitoring provides an opportunity to determine whether the original threat persists and to detect emerging threats, reinforcing the role of wildlife rehabilitation within a One Health surveillance framework.

The growing contact between wildlife and humans has driven the development of noninvasive monitoring techniques. Among these are biomarkers such as radioactive isotopes, stable isotopes, fatty acids, and systemic and physical markers, which allow the identification of physiological processes of interest and have applications in

dietary studies, movement analysis, and population estimation [138]. The use of oxidative status markers, for instance, enables the assessment of the effects of anthropogenic activities on species' biological fitness, facilitating the identification of threats and the design of mitigation measures [139]. Camera traps, meanwhile, allow the detection of a wide variety of species, particularly medium and large mammals, providing information on behavior, habitat use, abundance, and species richness, all of which are relevant data for conservation purposes [140].

7. Current and future challenges

Effective wildlife conservation requires a strong link between scientific knowledge and public decision-making [141]. In this context, science provides key evidence on biodiversity, ecosystem dynamics, and the impacts of human activities [142, 143]. At the same time, public policies enable this knowledge to be translated into concrete actions for management, regulation and land-use planning [144, 145]. Furthermore, a genuine commitment to international cooperation is needed to strengthen the regulation of environmental pollution, including the management of solid waste, given its impacts on both human and animal health. Policies promoting the responsible use of antibiotics, responsible pet ownership, and effective enforcement measures to prevent the spread of invasive alien species should also be integrated into public policies across different regions [146]. Without this integration, decisions may lack technical grounding, or scientific evidence may fail to have a real impact on conservation.

A central element in this integration is the development of robust environmental monitoring systems that generate continuous, reliable data on faunal populations, habitat quality, and the presence of threats [147–149]. Tools such as remote sensing, in-situ monitoring, and AI-based predictive models have proven critical for detecting early changes in ecosystems, including the expansion of invasive species, habitat degradation, and the occurrence of extreme events (e.g., harmful algal blooms) [150–152]. This information, properly processed and communicated, can feed early warning systems and support real-time decision-making [153].

The integration of public policies into biodiversity conservation begins with the strengthening and transfer of knowledge from academia to government institutions and civil society [129]. Biodiversity conservation must incorporate a One Health approach not because public policies require it, but because there is a recognized interdependence between human, animal and ecosystem health [137, 154]. Recognizing that the direct drivers of biodiversity loss, such as climate change, for example, need to be addressed from a multidisciplinary perspective involving policies to mitigate the resulting impact, risk prevention strategies and sustainability is essential [155–157].

The ongoing transformation of the landscape due to human activities, such as urbanization, intensive agriculture, and infrastructure development, has given rise to highly anthropized landscapes where wildlife must adapt to new ecological conditions (208). In these environments, conservation cannot focus solely on pristine areas; it must incorporate strategies that enable the coexistence of humans and wildlife. In this context, some species have demonstrated a remarkable capacity for adaptation, modifying their behavior, diet, activity patterns, and even their physiology to persist in human-dominated environments (209). In Latin

America, and particularly in Chile and Argentina, numerous cases of wildlife adapting to human-altered landscapes have been documented. For example, the culpeo fox (*Lycalopex culpaeus*) and the chilla fox (*Lycalopex griseus*) have been observed in peri-urban areas, using fragmented ecological corridors and feeding on resources available in developed areas (214). Similarly, some raptors and scavengers, such as the chimango caracara (*Milvago chimango*), have increased their presence in cities, taking advantage of food sources associated with human activities (215). These cases demonstrate the ability of certain species to persist in altered environments, though they also pose challenges for human-wildlife conflict and health risks.

From a conservation perspective, it is essential to develop strategies that promote ecological connectivity and reduce the negative impacts of urbanization. The implementation of biological corridors, ecologically focused urban planning, and green infrastructure (such as urban parks, green roofs, and buffer zones) is a key tool for facilitating wildlife movement and survival (216). Furthermore, mitigating specific threats, such as vehicle strikes, light and noise pollution, and the presence of pets, is essential to improving the conditions of these habitats (217).

8. Conclusions

Issues affecting biodiversity, such as climate change, habitat loss, emerging diseases, and the spread of invasive species, are complex and multifactorial and, therefore, cannot be addressed by a single discipline. The integration of knowledge allows for a better understanding of these dynamics and the design of solutions that are more effective, adaptive, and sustainable over time.

In this context, science plays a fundamental role in decision-making, providing solid evidence and analytical tools to guide public policy, management strategies, and conservation efforts. The development of technologies such as remote sensing, environmental monitoring systems, and predictive models has significantly expanded our ability to observe, analyze, and anticipate changes in ecosystems. However, the challenge lies not only in generating knowledge but also in ensuring its proper transfer and integration into management processes, promoting evidence-based decision-making with a long-term vision.

Furthermore, the magnitude and global nature of the biodiversity crisis make it essential to strengthen international collaboration. Biodiversity and ecological processes do not recognize political borders, so cooperation among countries, institutions, and research networks is key to sharing data, methodologies, experiences, and technical capabilities. Joint initiatives allow for addressing common problems, such as the conservation of migratory species, the management of transboundary watersheds, or the surveillance of zoonotic diseases, generating synergies that enhance the impact of local actions.

Taken together, moving toward effective wildlife conservation requires not only high-quality scientific knowledge but also collaborative, inclusive, and evidence-based governance in an integrative One Health vision.

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Conflict of Interest

The authors declare no conflict of interest.

Author details

Diana Echeverry Berrío^{1*}, Daniela Cartes Venegas², Daniela Ivonne Doussang^{3,4}, Lien Rodríguez López², Juana Paola Correa¹, AnaLía Henríquez Herrera¹, Gabriela Del Aguila-Herrera⁵ and Maria Carolina Silva De la Fuente⁶

1 School of Veterinary Medicine, Faculty of Veterinary Medicine, University of San Sebastián, Concepción, Chile

2 Faculty of Engineering, San Sebastián University, Concepción, Chile

3 School of Veterinary Medicine, Faculty of Life Sciences, Andrés Bello University, Viña del Mar, Chile

4 One Health Institute, Andrés Bello University, Santiago, Chile

5 School of Veterinary Medicine, Faculty of Veterinary Medicine, University of San Sebastián, Concepción, Santiago, Chile

6 Catholic University of Maule, Department of Agricultural Sciences, School of Veterinary Medicine, San Isidro Labrador Campus, Curicó, Chile

*Address all correspondence to: diana.echeverry@uss.cl

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